Lecture 06 (B05): Deep Equilibrium Nets — The Central Idea

Deep Equilibrium Nets (DEQNs)

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Based on: Azinovic, Gaegauf & Scheidegger (2022), *International Economic Review* 63(4), 1471–1525.
DOI: https://doi.org/10.1111/iere.12575

Materials: https://github.com/sischei/Deep_Learning_for_Solving_And_Estimating_Dynamic_Economic_Models

Outline

1. **Motivation**
   Why heterogeneous-agent models? The curse of dimensionality.
2. **From ANNs to Deep Equilibrium Nets**
   DNNs as function approximators, supervised vs. unsupervised loss, the DEQN training algorithm.
3. **Brock–Mirman Benchmark**
   Analytical test case, DEQN implementation.
4. **Parallelization & HPC**
   Data parallelism, MPI/Horovod, scalability to many nodes.
5. **Hands-on exercises**
   Notebooks 03/04 extend Brock–Mirman to uncertain, constrained, and multi-agent settings (endogenous labor, KKT multipliers with Fischer–Burmeister, 6-period OLG).

Wrap-up: **hands-on notebooks** on Nuvolos Cloud. Notebook 01 reproduces the slide derivation; 02 adds AR(1) productivity shocks; 03/04 are the blank/solved versions of the morning's exercises.

Roadmap of This Lecture (75 min)

Motivation (14 min)

- Heterogeneity and high dimensions
- Nonlinearities and kinks
- Irregular ergodic sets
- Our solution: DEQNs

From ANNs to DEQNs (25 min)

- DNNs as function approximators
- Supervised vs. unsupervised loss
- The DEQN training algorithm

Brock–Mirman Benchmark (18 min)

- Analytical test case
- DEQN implementation

Parallelization & HPC (10 min)

- Data parallelism (MPI/Horovod)
- Scalability to many nodes

Wrap-up + Hands-on (10 min)

- Four notebooks: BM (01), BM+shocks (02), exercises blank/solved (03/04)
- Exercise preview: KKT + Fischer–Burmeister, 6-period OLG

Part I

Motivation

Heterogeneity Matters

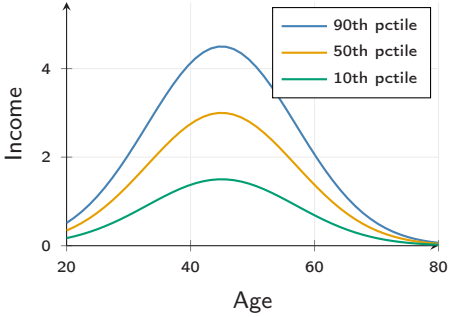
Key questions: inequality over the life cycle; idiosyncratic vs. aggregate risk; distributional effects of policy.

Quantitative punchline:

- Hand-to-mouth HH: MPC ≈ 1; unconstrained: MPC ≈ 0.05
- Representative agent averages these out, misses the policy response

Kaplan, Moll & Violante 2018; Bilbiie 2008; Krueger et al. 2016

$\Rightarrow$ Heterogeneity is one of several forces that blow up d (also: many countries, many assets, climate state, . . .).



Stylized income-by-age profiles

Dynamic Stochastic General Equilibrium Models

Generic formulation: find policy functions $p(\cdot)$ such that

$$\mathbb{E}\Big[G\big(\boldsymbol{x}_t,\, \boldsymbol{x}_{t+1},\, p(\boldsymbol{x}_t),\, p(\boldsymbol{x}_{t+1})\big) \;\Big|\; \boldsymbol{x}_t,\, p(\boldsymbol{x}_t)\Big] = 0$$

with transition law $\boldsymbol{x}_{t+1} = h\big(\boldsymbol{x}_t,\, p(\boldsymbol{x}_t),\, \varepsilon_{t+1}\big)$.

Four computational challenges (Azinovic, Gaegauf & Scheidegger, 2022):

1. Stochasticity: nontrivial expectations over ε_{t+1} and the ergodic distribution
2. High-dimensional state space: heterogeneity, many assets, many shocks all push d up
3. Strong nonlinearities / kinks from occasionally binding constraints and regime switches
4. Irregular geometry of the ergodic set: recurrent states are not a hypercube

No classical method addresses all four jointly: sparse grids cover (1-3) but fail past $d \sim 20$; Gaussian processes cover (1,2,4) but choke on large data.

What is High-Dimensional?

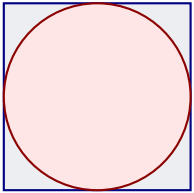
Dimensions d	Grid points n^d	Runtime
1	10	10 seconds
2	100	2 minutes
5	10^5	1 day
10	10^{10}	317 years
20	10^{20}	$\sim$ 3 trillion years

Assumes $n = 10$ grid points per dimension and 1 second per evaluation.

Three remedies:

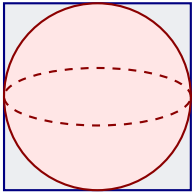
1. Sparse grids (Brumm & Scheidegger, 2017)
2. Random grids (Rust, 1997)
3. Neural networks (this lecture)

Volumes in High Dimensions



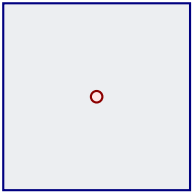
2D

$V_{\text{sphere}}/V_{\text{cube}} = \pi/4 \approx 0.785$



3D

$V_{\text{sphere}}/V_{\text{cube}} = \pi/6 \approx 0.524$



100D

$V_{\text{sphere}}/V_{\text{cube}} \approx 1.87 \times 10^{-70}$

Implication

In high dimensions, almost all volume is in the corners. Grid-based methods waste most of their evaluation points in regions that barely contribute to the integral or approximation.

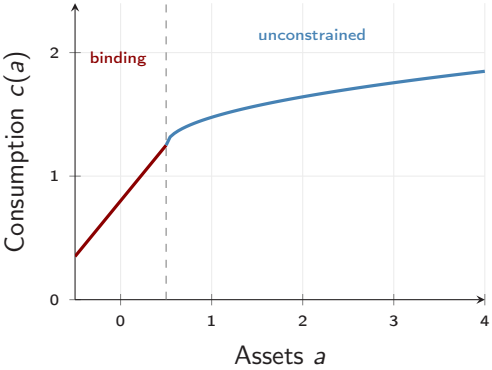
Nonlinearities and Kinks

Where do kinks come from?

- Borrowing constraints: $a_{t+1} \geq \underline{a}$
- Zero lower bound: $i_t \geq 0$
- Short-sale / participation: corner solutions
- Default, regime switches, indivisibilities

Occasionally binding constraints $\Rightarrow$ policy functions are non-smooth at the boundary of the binding region.

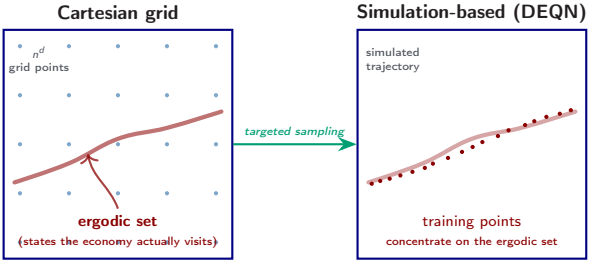
Polynomial / spectral methods lose accuracy; sparse grids can resolve kinks but only for $d \lesssim 20$. Neural networks handle kinks natively via ReLU-type activations.



Kinked consumption policy at the borrowing limit

The Ergodic Set Is Not a Hypercube

Grid-based methods tile the full hypercube $\boldsymbol{x} \in [\boldsymbol{x}_{\min}, \boldsymbol{x}_{\max}]^d$. **But** simulated states drawn from the model's law of motion fill only a thin, irregular subset, the ergodic set (states actually visited by the economy), often $\ll 1\%$ of the hypercube (Judd, Maliar & Maliar, 2011).



A full Cartesian grid wastes most of its work in regions the economy never visits $\Rightarrow$ motivates simulation-based, grid-free methods.

Abstract Problem Formulation

We need a numerical method that satisfies:

1. **Global approximation:** avoid purely local perturbation solutions
2. **Approximate solutions:** accept small residual error $\varepsilon > 0$
3. **Grid-free in practice:** avoid explicit tensor-product growth n^d
4. **Flexible geometry:** handle nonlinearities, kinks, and irregular ergodic sets
5. **Parallel-friendly:** benefit from parallelization on modern hardware

$\Rightarrow$ **DEQNs address this wishlist well in practice,** while mitigating rather than eliminating high-dimensional costs.

Our Solution: Deep Equilibrium Nets

Core idea (Azinovic, Gaegauf & Scheidegger, 2022):

Replace the traditional grid-based solution with a neural network trained to satisfy economic equilibrium conditions.

Three Key Ingredients

1. **Equilibrium error as loss function:** use the economic equations $G(\cdot) = 0$ directly, with no labeled data needed
2. **Stochastic gradient descent:** optimize network parameters ρ via SGD on mini-batches
3. **Simulated paths:** draw training points from the ergodic distribution of the model itself

$\Rightarrow$ This turns solving an economic model into training a neural network.

It avoids explicit state-space grids, but expectation accuracy, sampling quality, and optimization still matter.

Part II

From ANNs to Deep Equilibrium Nets

What is a Deep Neural Network?

A deep neural network (DNN) $\mathcal{N}_\rho : \mathbb{R}^{d_{\text{in}}} \to \mathbb{R}^{d_{\text{out}}}$ is a parametric function approximator.

Universal approximation (Cybenko 1989, Hornik et al. 1989):

$$\forall f \in C(\mathcal{K}, \mathbb{R}),\ \forall \varepsilon > 0,\ \ \exists\, \rho^\star : \quad \sup_{\boldsymbol{x} \in \mathcal{K}} \left\| \mathcal{N}_{\rho^\star}(\boldsymbol{x}) - f(\boldsymbol{x}) \right\| < \varepsilon$$

($\mathcal{K} \subset \mathbb{R}^{d_{\text{in}}}$ compact; the norm is the supremum over $\mathcal{K}$.)

In economics:

- Input: state variables $\boldsymbol{x}_t \in \mathbb{R}^d$ (capital, productivity, wealth distribution, ...)
- Output: policy variables (consumption, savings, prices, ...)
- Parameters ρ: weights and biases, found by training

DNN Layer Structure

$$\boxed{\boldsymbol{x} \in \mathbb{R}^{d_{\text{in}}}} \rightarrow \boxed{\boldsymbol{W}^{(1)}\boldsymbol{x} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(1)}} \rightarrow \boxed{\boldsymbol{W}^{(2)}\boldsymbol{a}^{(1)} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(2)}} \rightarrow \cdots \rightarrow \boxed{\boldsymbol{W}^{(L)}\boldsymbol{a}^{(L-1)} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(L)}}$$

Input | Hidden 1 | Hidden 2 | Output

Each layer performs an affine transformation:

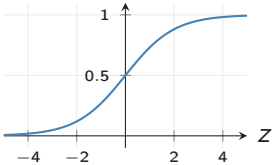
$$\boldsymbol{z}^{(\ell)} = \boldsymbol{W}^{(\ell)}\boldsymbol{a}^{(\ell-1)} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(\ell)}, \qquad \ell = 1, \ldots, L$$

where $\boldsymbol{W}^{(\ell)} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_\ell \times n_{\ell-1}}$ and $\boldsymbol{b}^{(\ell)} \in \mathbb{R}^{n_\ell}$.

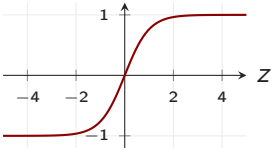
Without nonlinear activations, the entire network collapses to a single affine map.

Activation Functions

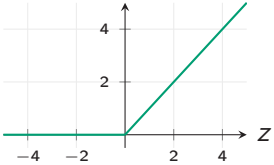
Sigmoid: $\sigma(z) = \frac{1}{1+e^{-z}}$



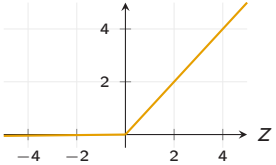
Tanh: $\tanh(z)$



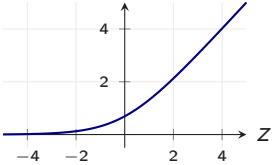
ReLU: $\max(0, z)$



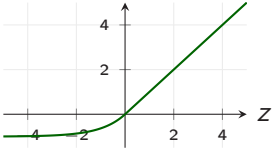
Leaky ReLU: $\max(0.01z, z)$



Softplus: $\ln(1 + e^z)$



ELU: z **if** $z \geq 0$; $e^z - 1$ **if** $z < 0$



DNN with Nonlinear Activations

$$\boxed{\boldsymbol{x} \in \mathbb{R}^{d_{\text{in}}}} \rightarrow \boxed{\phi^{(1)}\big(\boldsymbol{W}^{(1)}\boldsymbol{x} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(1)}\big)} \rightarrow \boxed{\phi^{(2)}\big(\boldsymbol{W}^{(2)}\boldsymbol{a}^{(1)} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(2)}\big)} \rightarrow \boxed{\boldsymbol{W}^{(L)}\boldsymbol{a}^{(L-1)} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(L)}}$$

Input | Hidden 1 | Hidden 2 | Output (no activation)

Each hidden layer applies a nonlinear activation $\phi^{(\ell)}$:

$$\boldsymbol{a}^{(\ell)} = \phi^{(\ell)}\big(\boldsymbol{W}^{(\ell)}\boldsymbol{a}^{(\ell-1)} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(\ell)}\big), \qquad \ell = 1, \ldots, L-1$$

- The output layer is typically linear (for regression) or uses softplus (to enforce positivity, e.g. consumption)
- The full network: $\mathcal{N}_\rho(\boldsymbol{x}) = \boldsymbol{W}^{(L)}\boldsymbol{a}^{(L-1)} + \boldsymbol{b}^{(L)}$

Finding Parameters: Supervised Learning

Standard approach (when labeled data $\{(\boldsymbol{x}_i, y_i)\}_{i=1}^N$ are available):

1. **Collect labeled data:** $\boldsymbol{x}_i \xrightarrow{\text{true mapping}} y_i$
2. **Define a loss function:**

$$\ell_\rho^{\text{sup}} = \frac{1}{N}\sum_{i=1}^{N}\left\|y_i - \mathcal{N}_\rho(\boldsymbol{x}_i)\right\|^2 \qquad \text{(mean squared error)}$$

3. **Update via SGD** (η = learning rate; the symbol α is reserved for the Cobb–Douglas capital share later in the deck):

$$\rho^{\text{new}} = \rho^{\text{old}} - \eta \cdot \left.\frac{\partial \ell_\rho}{\partial \rho}\right|_{\rho=\rho^{\text{old}}}$$

This is the recipe from Lecture 1. But in economics, we rarely have labeled data...

The "Data Problem" in Economics

Deep learning excels when massive labeled datasets are available.

But in computational economics:

- We solve functional equations, not classification/regression tasks
- There are no labeled pairs $(\boldsymbol{x}_i, y_i)$
- Traditional approach: time iteration on a grid, but grids do not scale

Key insight:

- We know the structural equations $G(\cdot) = 0$
- We can check how well a candidate policy satisfies them
- $\Rightarrow$ Use the equilibrium error as the loss function!

Traditional Approach: Time Iteration on a Grid

Algorithm: Grid-Based Collocation

Input: Grid $\mathcal{G} = \{\boldsymbol{x}_1, \ldots, \boldsymbol{x}_M\} \subset \mathbb{R}^d$, initial guess $p^{(0)}$
for $k = 0, 1, 2, \ldots$ until convergence **do**
  for each grid point $\boldsymbol{x}_i \in \mathcal{G}$ **do**
    Solve $G\big(\boldsymbol{x}_i,\, p^{(k)}(\boldsymbol{x}_i),\, p^{(k)}\big) = 0$ for $p^{(k+1)}(\boldsymbol{x}_i)$
  end for
  Interpolate $p^{(k+1)}$ between grid points
end for

Problems:

- Cartesian grids need $M = n^d$ points, infeasible beyond $d \sim 4$–5 at sensible resolution (10^5 at $d = 5$, 10^{10} at $d = 10$)
- Sparse grids (Smolyak, adaptive) extend the practical reach only to $d \sim 20$–50
- Heterogeneous-agent or many-country DSGE models routinely need $d \gg 50$, beyond any grid-based method

The DEQN Loss Function

Key idea: replace labeled data with economic equilibrium conditions.

Let $G(\boldsymbol{x}, f(\boldsymbol{x})) = 0$ be the system of equilibrium equations. Define:

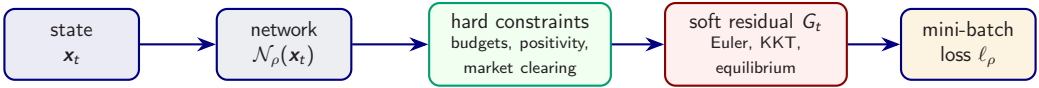
$$\boxed{\ell_\rho = \frac{1}{N}\sum_{i=1}^{N}\left\| G\left(\boldsymbol{x}_i, \mathcal{N}_\rho(\boldsymbol{x}_i)\right)\right\|^2}$$

- $\mathcal{N}_\rho(\boldsymbol{x}_i)$ is the neural net's predicted policy at state $\boldsymbol{x}_i$
- $G(\cdot)$ measures the equilibrium error (e.g. Euler equation residual)
- Small ℓ_ρ means the policy nearly satisfies the equations on the sampled states

$\Rightarrow$ No labels needed, so this is **unsupervised** (or "self-supervised") learning.

In stochastic models, expectations inside G are approximated, e.g. by path averaging or quadrature.

Inside One DEQN Training Step



- Encode what can be enforced exactly in the architecture.
- Minimize only the genuinely non-closed-form equilibrium conditions.
- Draw states from the model's own simulation, so training focuses on the ergodic set.

Training Algorithm for DEQNs

Algorithm 1: Deep Equilibrium Net Training

Input: Initial state $\boldsymbol{x}_0$, network $\mathcal{N}_\rho$, learning rate η, episodes E, simulation horizon T_{sim}, training steps T_{train}

for episode $e = 1, \ldots, E$ **do**

  Simulate path: $\boldsymbol{x}_0 \to \boldsymbol{x}_1 \to \cdots \to \boldsymbol{x}_{T_{\text{sim}}}$ using $\mathcal{N}_\rho$ and transition law

  for gradient step $t = 1, \ldots, T_{\text{train}}$ **do**

    Draw mini-batch $\mathcal{B} \subset \{\boldsymbol{x}_0, \ldots, \boldsymbol{x}_{T_{\text{sim}}}\}$

    Compute loss: $\ell_\rho = \frac{1}{|\mathcal{B}|} \sum_{\boldsymbol{x}_i \in \mathcal{B}} \| G(\boldsymbol{x}_i, \mathcal{N}_\rho(\boldsymbol{x}_i)) \|^2$

    Update: $\rho \leftarrow \rho - \eta \cdot \nabla_\rho \ell_\rho$

  end for

end for

Output: Trained network $\mathcal{N}_{\rho^\star}$ approximating the policy function

Note: Training points come from the model's own simulation, so the network learns on the ergodic distribution, focusing on economically relevant regions.

Supervised vs. Unsupervised (DEQN) Learning

Supervised

Labeled data $(\boldsymbol{x}_i, y_i)$

$\downarrow$

$\ell = \|y_i - \mathcal{N}_\rho(\boldsymbol{x}_i)\|^2$

$\downarrow$

SGD $\rightarrow \rho^\star$

DEQN (Unsupervised)

Equations $G(\boldsymbol{x}, p(\boldsymbol{x})) = 0$

$\downarrow$

$\ell = \|G(\boldsymbol{x}_i, \mathcal{N}_\rho(\boldsymbol{x}_i))\|^2$

$\downarrow$

SGD $\rightarrow \rho^\star$

Key difference: DEQNs replace labeled data with structural economic equations.

DEQN: Key Recap

Replace Labels

Instead of labeled data $(\boldsymbol{x}_i, y_i)$, use the economic equilibrium equations $G(\cdot) = 0$ as the loss.

Replace Grids

Instead of n^d grid points, use a neural network $\mathcal{N}_\rho$ that maps states to policies globally.

Replace TI

Instead of time iteration with interpolation, use SGD on simulated paths from the model.

Result: A grid-free, simulation-based method that can handle much higher-dimensional models than standard grids and maps naturally to GPUs.

Part III

Brock–Mirman Benchmark

Brock–Mirman (1972): Setup

Social planner's problem. Choose a consumption sequence to maximize expected lifetime log utility:

$$\max_{\{C_t\}_{t=0}^{\infty}} \mathbb{E}\left[\sum_{t=0}^{\infty} \beta^t \ln C_t\right]$$

Resource constraint (full depreciation, $\delta = 1$):

$$C_t + K_{t+1} \;=\; z_t K_t^{\alpha}, \qquad K_0 > 0 \text{ given.}$$

Stochastic productivity. TFP z_t follows an AR(1) in logs:

$$\ln z_{t+1} \;=\; \varrho \ln z_t + \sigma_z \, \epsilon_{t+1}, \qquad \epsilon_{t+1} \sim \mathcal{N}(0,1).$$

State & control. State $x_t = (K_t, z_t)$; control C_t. Capital then follows from the budget as $K_{t+1} = z_t K_t^{\alpha} - C_t$.

Next two slides: derive the Euler equation from first principles, then obtain the closed-form policy – the benchmark we will later compare the DEQN solution to.

Deriving the Euler Equation (Lagrangian)

Step 1. Lagrangian. Attach a multiplier $\lambda_t \geq 0$ to each period's budget constraint:

$$\mathcal{L} \;=\; \mathbb{E}\left[\sum_{t=0}^{\infty} \beta^t \Big[\, \ln C_t \;-\; \lambda_t \left(C_t + K_{t+1} - z_t K_t^{\alpha}\right)\Big]\right].$$

Step 2. Take partial derivatives with respect to the choices at date t:

Consumption FOC $\partial\mathcal{L}/\partial C_t = 0$:

$$\beta^t\left(\frac{1}{C_t} - \lambda_t\right) = 0 \implies \lambda_t = \frac{1}{C_t}.$$

Capital FOC $\partial\mathcal{L}/\partial K_{t+1} = 0$:

$$-\beta^t \lambda_t \;+\; \beta^{t+1}\,\mathbb{E}\big[\lambda_{t+1}\,\alpha z_{t+1} K_{t+1}^{\alpha-1}\big] = 0.$$

Step 3. Eliminate λ. Substitute $\lambda_t = 1/C_t$, $\lambda_{t+1} = 1/C_{t+1}$ and divide by β^t:

$$\boxed{\frac{1}{C_t} \;=\; \beta\,\mathbb{E}\left[\frac{\alpha\, z_{t+1}\, K_{t+1}^{\alpha-1}}{C_{t+1}}\right]} \qquad \text{(stochastic Euler equation)}$$

Reading: marginal utility of today's consumption $=$ discounted expected marginal utility of tomorrow's consumption $\times$ gross marginal product of capital at $t{+}1$. The transversality condition $\lim_{t\to\infty} \mathbb{E}[\beta^t \lambda_t K_{t+1}] = 0$ rules out bubbles.

Closed-Form Policy via Guess-and-Verify

Guess. Consumption is a constant fraction $1-\phi$ of output:

$$C_t \;=\; (1-\phi)\, z_t K_t^{\alpha}, \qquad \phi \in (0,1) \text{ to be determined.}$$

The budget then implies $K_{t+1} = \phi\, z_t K_t^{\alpha}$.

Substitute into the Euler equation. With $C_{t+1} = (1-\phi)\, z_{t+1} K_{t+1}^{\alpha}$,

$$\frac{\alpha\, z_{t+1}\, K_{t+1}^{\alpha-1}}{C_{t+1}} \;=\; \frac{\alpha\, z_{t+1}\, K_{t+1}^{\alpha-1}}{(1-\phi)\, z_{t+1}\, K_{t+1}^{\alpha}} \;=\; \frac{\alpha}{(1-\phi)\, K_{t+1}}.$$

Note: z_{t+1} cancels, so the conditional expectation collapses (log + Cobb–Douglas + full depreciation).

Solve for ϕ. Plug $K_{t+1} = \phi z_t K_t^{\alpha}$ on both sides of the Euler:

$$\underbrace{\frac{1}{(1-\phi)\, z_t K_t^{\alpha}}}_{\text{LHS}} \;=\; \beta \cdot \underbrace{\frac{\alpha}{(1-\phi)\, \phi\, z_t K_t^{\alpha}}}_{\text{RHS}} \;\Longrightarrow\; 1 = \frac{\beta\alpha}{\phi} \;\Longrightarrow\; \phi = \beta\alpha.$$

Closed-form policy.

$$\boxed{C_t \;=\; (1-\beta\alpha)\, z_t K_t^{\alpha}, \qquad K_{t+1} \;=\; \beta\alpha\, z_t K_t^{\alpha}}$$

This benchmark provides an analytic target against which we will measure the DEQN's trained policy.

Brock–Mirman: Hard vs. Soft Constraints

Split the equilibrium conditions by what the architecture can enforce exactly.

Hard (architecture, no loss term)

$$C_t = (1 - s_t)\, z_t K_t^{\alpha} \quad \Rightarrow \quad C_t > 0$$
$$K_{t+1} = s_t\, z_t K_t^{\alpha} \quad \Rightarrow \quad K_{t+1} > 0$$

state (K_t, z_t) → $\mathcal{N}_\rho$ → $s_t = \sigma(\cdot) \in (0,1)$

Soft (minimized in the loss ℓ_ρ)

$$e_{\mathrm{REE}}(K_t, z_t) = \frac{\left(\beta\, \mathbb{E}[\alpha z_{t+1} K_{t+1}^{\alpha-1} / C_{t+1}]\right)^{-1}}{C_t} - 1$$

Why bother? A softplus head on C_t alone would secure $C_t > 0$ but could push $K_{t+1} < 0$. The sigmoid-savings head removes *both* failure modes before training starts. Only the genuinely non-closed-form condition, the Euler equation, enters the loss.

Brock–Mirman: Residual, Expectation, Loss

Pathwise residual used in the notebook (full-depreciation $\delta = 1$ benchmark):

$$G_t = 1 - \beta \frac{C_t}{C_{t+1}} \cdot \alpha z_{t+1} K_{t+1}^{\alpha-1},$$

with

$$K_{t+1} = s_t z_t K_t^{\alpha}, \qquad C_{t+1} = (1 - s_{t+1}) z_{t+1} K_{t+1}^{\alpha}.$$

Partial depreciation. The uncertainty notebook uses $\delta = 0.1$; the marginal productivity of capital then becomes $\alpha z_{t+1} K_{t+1}^{\alpha-1} + (1-\delta)$ and $K_{t+2} = z_{t+1} K_{t+1}^{\alpha} + (1-\delta) K_{t+1} - C_{t+1}$. The closed-form $\phi = \alpha\beta$ only holds at $\delta = 1$.

Training loss:

$$\ell_\rho = \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^{N} |G_t^{(i)}|^2.$$

- Simulate states (K_t, z_t) forward
- Draw one next-period shock z_{t+1} per state

Expectation Handling

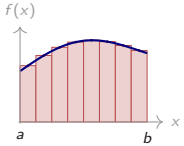
Brock–Mirman notebook: path averaging, one shock per state.

Richer models: approximate the conditional expectation explicitly via quadrature, see next three slides.

Numerical Integration: Why and How

Why an integral always shows up. Euler equations, Bellman operators, REE diagnostics, climate damages, structural moments, all reduce to evaluating $\mathbb{E}[g(\varepsilon)] = \int g(\varepsilon)\,\mu(\varepsilon)\,d\varepsilon$. Closed forms are rare, so we approximate by $\sum_q w_q\, g(\varepsilon_q)$. Two paradigms underlie every rule.

Deterministic: tile the area, integral $\to$ sum

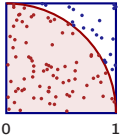


With $\Delta x = (b-a)/N$, $x_i = a + i\Delta x$, $I = \int_a^b f(x)\,dx \approx \sum_i w_i\, f(x_i)$:

- Midpoint: $I_N^{\mathbf{mid}} = \Delta x \sum_{i=1}^{N} f(x_i^{\mathbf{mid}})$, $\mathcal{O}(N^{-2})$
- Trapezoid: $I_N^{\mathbf{trap}} = \frac{\Delta x}{2}\left[f(x_0) + 2\sum_{i=1}^{N-1} f(x_i) + f(x_N)\right]$, $\mathcal{O}(N^{-2})$
- Simpson: parabolic arcs through triples, $\mathcal{O}(N^{-4})$
- Gauss–Hermite: optimal nodes/weights for e^{-x^2}, $\mathcal{O}(N^{-(2Q-1)})$

d-dim Cartesian grid: cost $\mathcal{O}(N^d)$, curse of dimensionality.

Random: throw darts to estimate π



Throw N uniform darts at $\Omega = [0,1]^2$:

$$\frac{\pi}{4} = \int_0^1\!\!\int_0^1 \mathbb{1}[x^2 + y^2 \le 1]\,dx\,dy \approx \frac{N_{\text{in}}}{N}$$

$$\widehat{\pi}_N = 4N_{\text{in}}/N, \quad \text{error } \mathcal{O}(N^{-1/2})$$

Independent of dimension, but slow.

Quadrature, I: Gauss–Hermite

Setup. Generic shock dimension d, with $\varepsilon' \sim \mathcal{N}(0, I_d)$. Brock–Mirman has $d = 1$ (one productivity shock); the IRBC chapter will use $d = N + 1$ (N country shocks plus one aggregate). We develop the framework here so it is ready for both cases.

One dimension. Gauss–Hermite uses Q nodes $\{\varepsilon_q\}$ (Hermite-polynomial roots) and weights $\{w_q\}$:

$$\mathbb{E}[h(\varepsilon)] \;=\; \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} h(\varepsilon)\, \frac{e^{-\varepsilon^2/2}}{\sqrt{2\pi}}\, d\varepsilon \;\approx\; \sum_{q=1}^{Q} w_q\, h(\varepsilon_q),$$

exact for univariate polynomials of degree $\leq 2Q - 1$.

Tensor product in d dimensions. Combine 1D rules along each axis:

$$\mathbb{E}\big[h(\boldsymbol{\varepsilon}')\big] \;\approx\; \sum_{q_1=1}^{Q} \cdots \sum_{q_d=1}^{Q} \Big(\textstyle\prod_j w_{q_j}\Big)\, h(\varepsilon_{q_1}, \ldots, \varepsilon_{q_d}).$$

- Strength: polynomial-exact in each coordinate, very accurate at low d. For $d = 1$ (Brock–Mirman) a $Q = 3$ rule is essentially exact.
- Weakness: cost Q^d blows up exponentially. For $Q = 3$, $d = 11$ (IRBC, $N = 10$): $\sim 1.8 \times 10^5$ nodes per state.

Quadrature, II: Monomial (Stroud-3) Rule

Idea. Drop full polynomial-exactness in every coordinate, keep exactness for total degree ≤ 3. Place nodes only on the principal axes of the d-dimensional shock space:

$$\boxed{\mathbb{E}\big[h(\varepsilon')\big] \;\approx\; \frac{1}{2d}\sum_{k=1}^{d}\Big[\,h\big(+\sqrt{d}\,\boldsymbol{e}_k\big) + h\big(-\sqrt{d}\,\boldsymbol{e}_k\big)\Big]}$$

where $\boldsymbol{e}_k$ is the k-th standard basis vector, giving $2d$ nodes at common radius $\sqrt{d}$. For Brock–Mirman ($d = 1$) this reduces to two nodes at ± 1; for IRBC ($d = N + 1$) it gives $2(N + 1)$ nodes.

What it integrates exactly

- $\mathbb{E}[\varepsilon_i'] = \mathbb{E}[\varepsilon_i'^{\,3}] = 0$ ($\pm$-symmetry).
- $\mathbb{E}[\varepsilon_i'\varepsilon_j'] = 0$, $i \neq j$ (each node lies on one axis).
- $\mathbb{E}[\varepsilon_i'^{\,2}] = 1$ (variance preserved).

Where it stops

- $\mathbb{E}[\varepsilon_i'^{\,4}]$ gives d vs. truth 3, a controlled fourth-order bias.

Why DEQNs love it

The integrand $h(\varepsilon')$ is the policy network composed with model primitives, smooth and only mildly nonlinear. Degree-3 exactness is enough for Euler-error tolerances of $\sim 10^{-3}$ on IRBC-class problems.

(Pichler 2011; Maliar & Maliar 2014)

Quadrature, III: Cost and Rules of Thumb

Per-state quadrature cost ($Q = 3$ for the tensor-product rule):

N	shocks $N{+}1$	tensor product 3^{N+1}	monomial $2(N{+}1)$	speed-up
2	3	27	6	$\sim 5\times$
5	6	729	12	$\sim 60\times$
10	11	177,147	22	$\sim 8{,}000\times$
20	21	$\sim 10^{10}$	42	$\sim 2\times 10^{8}\times$

Default rules of thumb

- $N{+}1 \leq 4$: tensor-product GH, $Q{=}5$.
- $5 \leq N{+}1 \lesssim 30$: Stroud-3 monomial.
- $N{+}1 \gtrsim 30$ or fat-tailed integrands: QMC (Sobol + inverse-CDF).

Practical notes

- Only the quadrature kernel changes; same DEQN loss, same training loop.
- Validate by tightening the rule and checking the Euler-error histogram is stable.
- Full derivations: lecture script §3.5.

Diagnostics: How Do We Know Training Worked?

Never trust a loss curve alone. On an independent *test* simulation of the trained policy, run these four complementary checks:

1. Euler-error distribution. Histogram $\log_{10}|e_{\mathrm{REE}}|$ on train and test states; both should peak near 10^{-3} or below, with no fatter right tail on test.
2. Policy-function benchmark. Overlay the DEQN policy on the analytic $s^\star = \beta\alpha$ for Brock–Mirman; for richer models, on a trusted reference (time iteration, perturbation).
3. Ergodic-set coverage. Scatter test states in the $(K_t, \log z_t)$ plane; the cloud should trace the training ergodic set — not collapse to a point, not spread like a grid.
4. Sanity checks. Verify accounting identities (budget, market clearing, non-negativity); check that ergodic moments (mean K, $\mathrm{std}(z)$, autocorrelations) match analytic or pre-computed values.

Green flags: low Euler error, matches benchmark, ergodic coverage, identities hold. Red flags: NaNs, fat tails, clamped policy, violated identities.

When no closed-form benchmark exists, draw inspiration from the VVUQ literature — Verification, Validation & Uncertainty Quantification (Roache 1998; Oberkampf & Roy 2010; ASME V&V 10/20) — which formalises residual convergence, solution verification, and error-bound reporting for computational models.

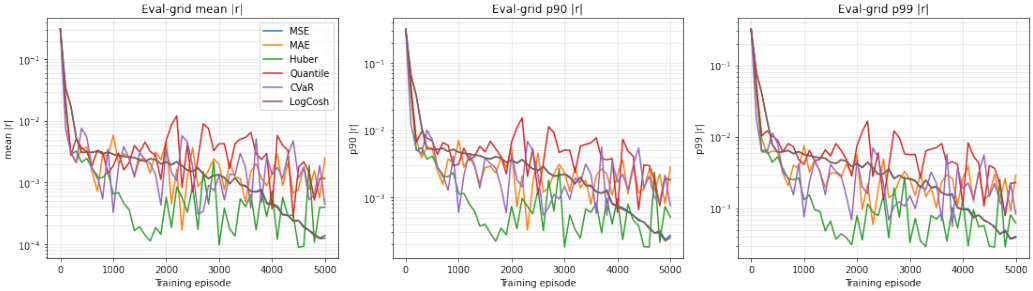
Choice of Training Loss: Six Kernels

The loss kernel is a modeling decision, not a default. Same Euler residual r, same network, same data, only the reduction $r \mapsto \ell$ changes:

Kernel	Formula	Character
MSE	$\frac{1}{B}\sum r^2$	quadratic; canonical default
MAE	$\frac{1}{B}\sum \lvert r\rvert$	constant gradient $\Rightarrow$ stalls at small $\lvert r\rvert$
Huber	quad. for $\lvert r\rvert \le \delta$, linear above	robust hybrid, but kink at $\lvert r\rvert = \delta$
Quantile	pinball at $\tau = 0.9$	trains the upper τ-quantile only
CVaR	mean of top 10% of $\lvert r\rvert$	explicitly trains the worst-case states
LogCosh	$\frac{1}{B}\sum \log\cosh(r)$	C^∞: $\frac{1}{2}r^2$ near 0, $\lvert r\rvert - \log 2$ in tails, no kink

Same Brock–Mirman model, full depreciation so $s^\star = \alpha\beta$ is in closed form; same network (2×32 swish, sigmoid head); same Adam optimizer; same CRN training stream. Six runs differ *only* in the reduction applied to the residual vector.

Loss Kernels: Convergence on Brock–Mirman



Mean / p_{90} / p_{99} of the absolute relative Euler error $|r|$ on a fixed evaluation grid, vs. training episode (log scale, 5000 episodes per kernel). LogCosh and MSE reach the lowest mean residual. Huber and CVaR produce the narrowest tail. MAE stalls at a noise floor.

Loss-Kernel Comparison: What to Take Away

- LogCosh converges most smoothly: the only C^∞ kernel that is MSE-like near $r = 0$ *and* MAE-like in the tails, no kink anywhere. Lowest-risk default when the residual distribution is unknown.
- MAE stalls at a noise floor: constant gradient magnitude prevents smaller steps as residuals shrink.
- Huber is robust but its kink at $|r|=\delta$ can introduce small oscillations.
- Quantile and CVaR narrow p_{99} at the cost of mean residual. Use them when worst-case policy quality matters (binding constraints, rare-but-consequential states, regulatory back-tests).
- Evaluate on the economic metric — Euler error along simulated paths, in CE-welfare-loss units — not on the training loss itself. The CE ranking is generally not the training-loss ranking.

Practical default

MSE for smooth problems; **LogCosh** as a drop-in that is more forgiving with heavy-tailed residuals; **Huber** / **Quantile** / **CVaR** when the worst-case state matters.

Companion notebook: `lectures/day2/code/05_StochasticBM_LossComparison.ipynb`.

Part IV

Parallelization & HPC

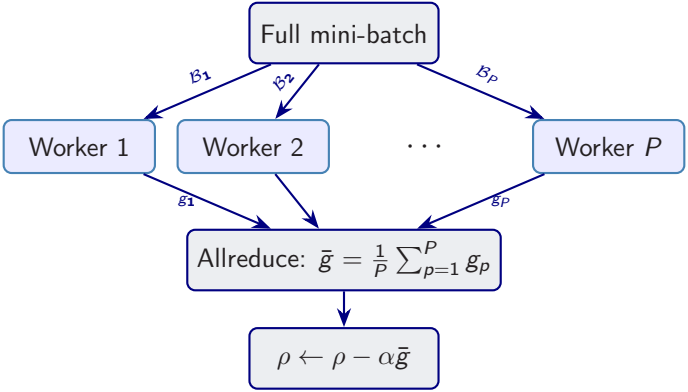
"To pull a bigger wagon, it is easier to add more oxen than to grow a gigantic ox."

— Gropp, Lusk & Skjellum (1999)

Using MPI: Portable Parallel Programming

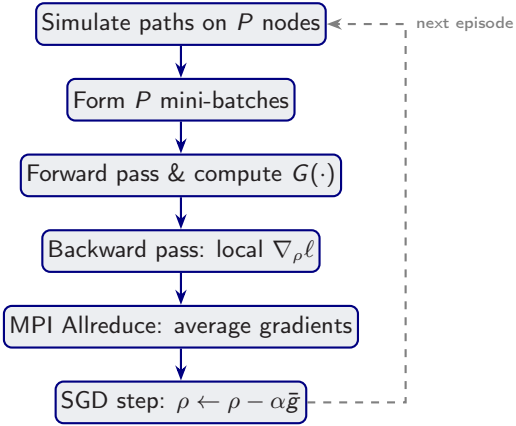
Data Parallelism for DEQNs

Idea: distribute training data across multiple workers (GPUs/CPUs).



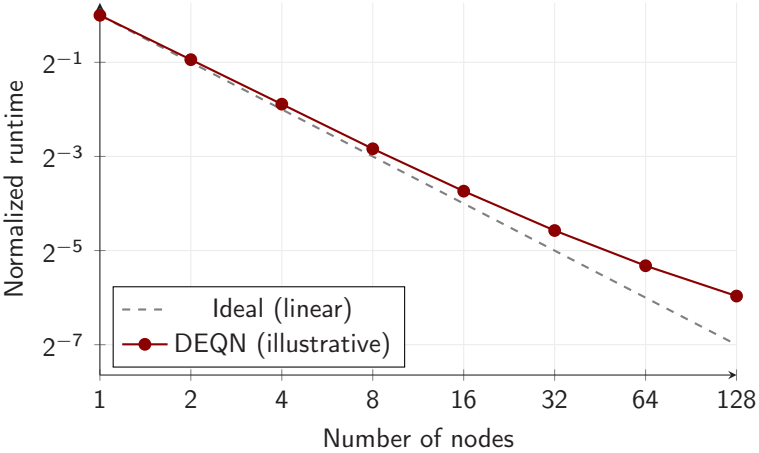
Implemented via **Horovod**/MPI. Each worker computes a local gradient; allreduce averages them.

DEQN Parallelization Scheme



Communication cost $\sim \mathcal{O}(|\rho|)$ per step, independent of data size.

Illustrative Scaling Pattern



Schematic message only: synchronous data parallelism is often close to linear for moderate worker counts; large clusters become increasingly communication-limited.

Preview: the Morning Exercises (10:45–12:00)

Exercises 03/04 extend Brock–Mirman in two directions:

1. *Endogenous labor* with a non-negativity constraint on leisure, introducing a *Karush–Kuhn–Tucker* multiplier $\mu_t \geq 0$.
2. A *6-period OLG* economy with a borrowing constraint on the young, again KKT with $\mu_t \geq 0$.

Why this matters for DEQNs. A KKT system imposes complementary slackness $\mu \geq 0,\ g \geq 0,\ \mu\, g = 0$. This cannot be encoded as a smooth equation, so we replace it by the *Fischer–Burmeister* function

$$\phi_{\mathrm{FB}}(a, b) \;=\; a + b - \sqrt{a^2 + b^2}, \qquad \phi_{\mathrm{FB}}(a, b) = 0 \iff a \geq 0,\ b \geq 0,\ a\, b = 0,$$

which is smooth everywhere except at the origin and is fully differentiable by autodiff.

Exercise loss. The notebooks sum a squared *Euler* residual and a squared *FB* residual for each constraint; both are minimized jointly. Details: see the IRBC chapter of the lecture script (KKT sub-section).

Hands-on Notebooks

Four notebooks accompany this lecture:

1. `01_Brock_Mirman_1972_DEQN.ipynb`
   Deterministic Brock–Mirman, exogenous uniform sampling of states.
2. `02_Brock_Mirman_Uncertainty_DEQN.ipynb`
   Stochastic Brock–Mirman ($\varrho > 0$, $\sigma_z > 0$), simulation-based sampling on the ergodic set.
3. `03_DEQN_Exercises_Blanks.ipynb` (morning exercises, blank template for student populate)
4. `04_DEQN_Exercises_Solutions.ipynb` (morning exercises, solved)

Notebooks 01–02 illustrate the sampling progression: uniform random $\rightarrow$ simulated trajectories. Notebooks 03–04 add KKT multipliers + Fischer–Burmeister + the 6-period OLG structure previewed on the previous slide.

All notebooks are on Nuvolos Cloud and the course GitHub repository.

Questions?

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https://sischei.github.io

Materials: https://github.com/sischei/Deep_Learning_for_Solving_And_Estimating_Dynamic_Economic_Models

Next up:

DEQN Exercises

10:45–12:00